

Monocular Depth Estimation as a Domain-Invariant Representation for Vision-Based Quadruped Parkour

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Abstract

Vision-based quadruped parkour typically relies on onboard depth cameras, limiting deployment to robots with specialized sensors. We investigate whether a pre-trained *monocular depth estimator* can serve as a domain-invariant bridge, enabling sim-to-real transfer from only RGB without photorealistic rendering or domain randomization.

We present a two-phase pipeline: a privileged teacher trained via PPO with ground-truth terrain scans, distilled into a visual student via DAgger operating on depth images from Depth Anything V2. In simulation, we demonstrate that this pipeline achieves limited parkour capabilities under conditions characterized by a *Depth Signal Quality* metric. Domain invariance experiments show that DA2 provides strong robustness to color and brightness changes and generalizes across simulated environments.

1 Introduction

Legged robots that traverse irregular terrain—stairs, hurdles, gaps—must perceive geometry and maintain tight coordination between vision and control. Training locomotion policies in simulation with reinforcement learning (RL) and transferring them to real hardware has proven effective for agile skills [7, 9, 13], and recent work [2, 4, 6, 21] has extended this to parkour—climbing, jumping, and crawling—via teacher-student distillation. In these systems, a *teacher* trains with privileged terrain information (e.g. ground-truth heightmaps), then a *student* reproduces the teacher’s behavior from onboard sensors.

A critical assumption, however, is access to an onboard depth sensor. Depth cameras (e.g. Intel RealSense) transfer well from simulation ??, but not all platforms include them—the Unitree Go2, for instance, ships with only a front-facing RGB camera ??.

Deploying RGB-trained policies on real robots requires bridging the *sim-to-real gap*. Three strategies have

emerged: (1) **domain randomization** [17], which randomizes visual properties; (2) **generative augmentation** [20], which uses diffusion models for photorealistic training images; and (3) **canonical representations**, which project both domains into a shared space via a foundation model.

We pursue strategy (3) using Depth Anything V2 (DA2) [19], a pre-trained monocular depth estimator trained on millions of diverse real images. We propose that because DA2 maps arbitrary RGB to a depth space invariant to appearance, a student policy consuming depth should inherit that invariance without photorealistic rendering or explicit domain randomization.

Thesis statement. We hypothesize that pre-trained monocular depth estimation provides a domain-invariant intermediate representation for vision-based quadruped parkour, allowing a student trained on estimated depth in simulation to generalize across visual domains.

Contributions.

- A two-stage teacher-student pipeline from privileged scandot heightmaps to monocular depth for quadruped parkour.
- A demonstration that monocular depth enables basic parkour (stairs, hurdles, gaps) in simulation.
- Identification of depth signal quality—governed by model scale and terrain texture—as the key factor limiting performance.
- A domain invariance experiment testing DA2-based students under visual perturbations.

2 Related Work

RL for legged locomotion. Modern quadruped controllers are typically learned via reinforcement learning in simulation and transferred to real hardware [7, 13]. Chen et al. [3] introduced the privileged teacher-student paradigm, where a teacher with access to ground-truth state is distilled into a sensorimotor student. Lee et al. [9] applied this to locomotion, training a student from proprioceptive history alone and achieving zero-shot sim-to-real transfer on rough terrain. Miki et al. [10] extended

this framework to perceptive locomotion, incorporating exteroceptive depth inputs.

Vision-based parkour. Agarwal et al. [1] introduced the scandot representation for egocentric depth-based locomotion, distilling a privileged teacher into a visual student. Extreme Parkour [4] and Robot Parkour Learning [21] build on this with CNN-GRU students that process depth images, demonstrating climbing, jumping, and crawling on real quadrupeds. SoloParkour [2] replaces distillation with off-policy RL warm-started from privileged experience, and ANYmal Parkour [6] uses a hierarchical skill-selection policy. All four systems assume access to a depth camera at deployment. Jenkins [8] is the closest work to ours, training an RGB parkour policy via domain randomization; we instead use monocular depth estimation as a canonical intermediate representation.

Sim-to-real for vision. Domain randomization [17] perturbs visual properties (textures, lighting, colors) so the policy learns invariance through exposure. LucidSim [20] replaces randomization with generative models that produce photorealistic training images. Xue et al. [18] combine photorealistic simulation with a teacher-student-bootstrap framework for humanoid loco-manipulation from RGB. All three approaches require significant rendering or generation overhead; we sidestep this by projecting RGB into a canonical depth space via a pre-trained estimator.

Monocular depth estimation. MiDaS [11] pioneered monocular depth estimation across diverse datasets. Depth Anything V2 (DA2) [19] achieves state-of-the-art zero-shot depth estimation using a vision transformer trained on 142M images. DA2 offers both relative and metric variants; we use the metric model, which predicts absolute depth in meters.

3 Mathematical Foundations

3.1 Problem Formulation

We model the parkour task as a Partially Observable Markov Decision Process $(\mathcal{S}, \mathcal{A}, \mathcal{O}, T, R, \gamma)$ with state space $\mathcal{S}$, action space $\mathcal{A}$, observation space $\mathcal{O}$, transition dynamics T , reward function R , and discount factor γ . The agent receives partial observation $o_t \in \mathcal{O}$ and selects action $a_t \in \mathcal{A} = \mathbb{R}^{12}$ (target joint position offsets). Observations decompose into three groups:

- **Proprioception** $o_{\text{prop}} \in \mathbb{R}^{53}$: base angular velocity, projected gravity, velocity and heading commands, joint positions, joint velocities, previous actions, and foot contacts.
- **Exteroception** o_{ext} : scandot heightmaps ($\mathbb{R}^{132}$) for the teacher, or depth/RGB images for the student.
- **Privileged** o_{priv} : friction and other physics parameters available only during teacher training.

3.2 PPO

The teacher policy π_θ is trained with Proximal Policy Optimization (PPO) [15], which maximizes a clipped surrogate objective:

$$L^{\text{CLIP}} = \mathbb{E}_t \left[\min \left(r_t \hat{A}_t, \text{clip}(r_t, 1-\epsilon, 1+\epsilon) \hat{A}_t \right) \right], \quad (1)$$

where $r_t = \pi_\theta(a_t|o_t)/\pi_{\theta_{\text{old}}}(a_t|o_t)$ is the probability ratio and $\hat{A}_t$ is the GAE [14] advantage estimate.

3.3 Reward Function

Table 1 lists the shaped reward terms.

Table 1: Reward function terms and scales.

Term	Scale	Description
tracking_goal_vel	3.0	Track goal velocity
tracking_goal_heading	1.5	Track heading
progress_along_course	2.0	Forward progress
waypoint_bonus	20.0	Sparse bonus
success_bonus	40.0	Course completion
termination	-50.0	Early termination
collision	-2.0	Body contact
feet_stumble	-1.0	Foot stumble
feet_edge	-2.0	Foot on edge
torques	-2×10^{-4}	Torque penalty
dof_acc	-2×10^{-7}	Joint accel.
action_rate	-0.01	Action smooth.
dof_pos_limits	-2.0	Joint limit
torque_limits	-0.2	Torque limit
lin_vel_z	-0.5	Vertical vel.
ang_vel_xy	-0.05	Roll/pitch rate
orientation	-0.5	Non-upright
flat_back	-3.0	Torso orient.

3.4 DAgger Distillation

The student policy is trained via Dataset Aggregation (DAgger) [12]. At each step the student observes o_{prop} and a depth image and produces a_{student} , but the teacher’s action a_{teacher} is executed. The student minimizes:

$$\mathcal{L} = \underbrace{\|a_{\text{teacher}} - a_{\text{student}}\|_2}_{\text{action loss}} + \underbrace{\|y_{\text{oracle}} - \hat{y}\|_2}_{\text{yaw loss}}, \quad (2)$$

where $\hat{y} \in \mathbb{R}^2$ is the student’s predicted heading and y_{oracle} is the ground-truth heading.

4 System Architecture

4.1 Overview

All experiments use the Genesis GPU simulator [5] with the legged_gym framework [13] and rsl_rl [16] on 4×

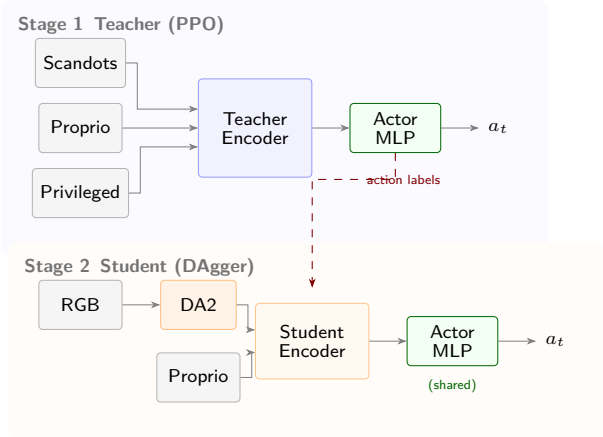


Figure 1: Two-stage training pipeline. The teacher uses privileged scandot observations; the student replaces these with either GT depth, DA2-inferred depth.

NVIDIA L40S GPUs. The robot is a Unitree Go2 quadruped with 12 actuated joints. Actions $a_t \in \mathbb{R}^{12}$ are target joint positions, updated at 50Hz and converted to torques via a PD controller.

$$\tau = K_p(a_t - q) - K_d\dot{q}, \quad (3)$$

The system follows the two-stage privileged distillation pipeline described in Section 1: a teacher trains with ground-truth scandot heightmaps [1], then a student reproduces the teacher’s behavior from depth or RGB images via DAgger (Figure 1).

4.2 Teacher

The teacher policy π_T maps proprioception, privileged physics parameters, and scandot heightmaps to joint targets. Three parallel MLPs encode each observation group into 32-dim latent vectors, which are concatenated with proprioception and fed through the actor MLP $\mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{12}$ to produce joint position offsets.

4.3 Student

The student replaces the scandot encoder with a visual encoder that must recover the terrain latent $z \in \mathbb{R}^{32}$ from a depth image (Figure 2). A CNN maps the depth image $d \in \mathbb{R}^{58 \times 87}$ to a 32-dim feature, which is concatenated with proprioception and compressed by an MLP. A GRU integrates these fused features across timesteps, producing z and a heading estimate $\hat{y} \in \mathbb{R}^2$. The teacher’s actor MLP is reused, taking $[o_{\text{prop}}; z]$ to output 12 joint targets. During DAgger distillation, the student minimizes the loss in Eq. 2 while the teacher’s actions are executed in the environment.

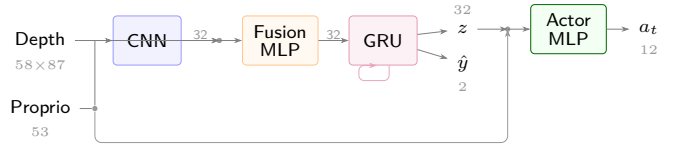


Figure 2: Student visual encoder. The depth CNN and proprioception are fused and processed by a GRU that produces the terrain latent and heading estimate used by the teacher’s actor MLP.

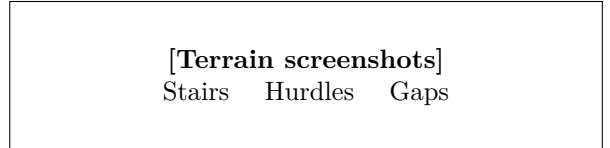


Figure 3: Simulated parkour terrains at increasing difficulty (left to right within each family).

4.4 Terrain and Curriculum

The simulator generates parkour terrains with three obstacle families (stairs, hurdles, gaps) at four difficulty levels per family (Figure 3). These obstacles are simpler than those in prior work [2, 4, 21]; our goal is to establish a baseline for evaluating the DA2 depth pipeline rather than to push the limits of agile locomotion. During teacher training, a curriculum advances robots to harder rows upon reaching a success threshold.

5 Experiments and Results

5.1 Teacher and GT-Depth Baselines

Table 2 shows the teacher and ground-truth depth student performance on gap terrain across difficulty rows.

Table 2: Teacher and GT-depth baselines (gap success rate, %).

	Row 0	Row 1	Row 2	Row 3
Teacher (GT scandots)	98.5	100.0	99.0	98.5
GT-depth student	94.5	94.5	89.1	87.5

The GT-depth student achieves $\geq 87\%$ on all rows, confirming the CNN–GRU architecture can extract sufficient geometric information from depth images. The gap to the teacher (5–11 pp) reflects the inherent information loss from scandots to a single depth viewpoint.

A zero-depth ablation (replacing all depth pixels with zero) drops success to 0–8%, confirming the student relies on depth for gap navigation rather than exploiting proprioceptive heuristics.

5.2 DA2 Depth Estimation Students

DA2-small (~25M params). Initial experiments with the smaller DA2 model plateaued at ~56% gap success on Row 0, despite extensive hyperparameter search across learning rates, curriculum schedules, and normalization schemes (Table 3). Over 30 training runs established this as a consistent ceiling.

Table 3: DA2-small experiments (best of 30+ runs).

Configuration	Row 0	Row 1
Best (diff-lr + cosine)	56.3%	33.6%
Fixed-range normalization	~45%	—
Calibrated linear	~45%	—
Frozen actor	~40%	—

Root cause: depth signal quality. Analysis of DA2-small depth maps on untextured terrain revealed the core issue. Without visual texture, DA2 produces nearly flat depth estimates (terrain–depth correlation $r = -0.10$), making gaps almost invisible. The gap-vs-ground pixel signal spans only 4.5% of the normalized output range—too weak for reliable detection through the CNN encoder.

DA2-base (~100M params). Upgrading to the four-times-larger DA2-base model immediately improved performance. Row 0 improved from 56% to 68% (+12 pp) and Row 1 from 34% to 83% (+49 pp). However, Row 3 remained near zero (0.8%), indicating that model scale alone does not solve the hardest gaps.

Terrain texture. Adding a checkerboard texture to the terrain surface provides DA2 with visual features to estimate depth from, since monocular depth estimation relies on texture gradients, perspective cues, and learned priors. Combined with DA2-base, this produced a breakthrough:

Table 4: Effect of DA2 model size and terrain texture on gap success rate (%).

Configuration	Row 0	Row 1	Row 2	Row 3
DA2-small	56.3	33.6	—	—
DA2-base	68.4	83.2	26.6	0.8
DA2-base + texture	87.5	93.0	87.1	80.5
GT-depth student	94.5	94.5	89.1	87.5
Gap to GT	−7.0	−1.5	−2.0	−7.0

The DA2-base + texture student (checkpoint 7000) reaches 80–93% across all rows, within 7 pp of the GT-depth upper bound. Row 3 improved from 0.8% to 80.5%—a +80 pp gain from texture alone.

Negative results. Several architectural modifications did not improve performance: temporal EMA smoothing of depth frames hurt convergence; Sobel gradient

channels produced ~40% (below baseline); alternative normalizations (calibrated linear, fixed range, mean-std) performed comparably to EMA percentile. This reinforces the finding that depth *signal quality* dominates architectural choices.

5.3 Key Finding: Signal Quality Over Architecture

Across all experiments, the dominant factor in student performance was the quality of the depth signal reaching the encoder, not the encoder architecture itself. Evidence:

- Architecture ablations (Sobel gradients, scandot prediction, GRU size, frozen actor) produced <15 pp variation.
- Depth quality changes (model size: +12–49 pp; texture: +72 pp on Row 3) produced order-of-magnitude larger effects.

This suggests that future work should prioritize depth estimation quality (larger models, better training data) over student architecture complexity.

6 Domain Invariance Experiment

The preceding results establish that DA2-based depth estimation enables strong parkour performance. We now test the core hypothesis: does this pipeline provide domain invariance?

6.1 Hypothesis

- H_1 : The DA2-based student maintains performance under visual domain shifts (texture, lighting, color), because the depth estimator maps diverse appearances to a canonical depth space.
- H_0 : The DA2 student degrades significantly under visual perturbations.

6.2 Visual Perturbations

We apply perturbations at *test time only*—the student was trained exclusively with checkerboard-textured terrain. Perturbations span two categories:

Texture replacement. Replace the training checkerboard with six alternatives: no texture (untextured geometry), solid colors (red, blue), flat grey, perlin noise, or a brick pattern. These range from completely featureless surfaces (no texture, solid colors, flat grey) to structured alternatives (noise, bricks).

Color jitter. Apply image-space perturbations to the rendered RGB frame before DA2 inference: global brightness scaling ($\pm 30\%$, $\pm 60\%$) and per-channel color shifts ($\pm 15\%$, $\pm 30\%$). These simulate lighting and white-balance variation without changing geometry.

Combined. Simultaneous texture replacement + color jitter at two severity levels: mild (bricks + brightness 30% + color 15%) and extreme (noise + brightness 60% + color 30%).

6.3 Protocol

The DA2-base+texture student (Section 5.2) is evaluated under all 13 conditions with 128 episodes on forced gap terrain (Row 0). We report success rate, progress ratio, and the delta from baseline (training visual conditions).

6.4 Results

Table 5 reports the full results. The perturbations reveal a clean separation between two types of visual domain shift.

Table 5: Domain invariance results: DA2-base+texture student on gap Row 0 (128 episodes per condition).

Perturbation	Succ.	Prog.	Δ
Baseline (checkerboard)	96.9%	.948	—
<i>Texture replacement (structured)</i>			
Bricks	89.8%	.908	−7.1
Noise	78.1%	.843	−18.8
<i>Texture removal (featureless)</i>			
No texture	18.0%	.437	−78.9
Solid red	23.4%	.471	−73.5
Solid blue	14.8%	.417	−82.1
Flat grey	18.0%	.456	−78.9
<i>Color / brightness jitter</i>			
Brightness $\pm 30\%$	95.3%	.937	−1.6
Brightness $\pm 60\%$	94.5%	.935	−2.4
Color $\pm 15\%$	91.4%	.914	−5.5
Color $\pm 30\%$	76.6%	.816	−20.3
<i>Combined</i>			
Mild (bricks+b30+c15)	82.0%	.862	−14.9
Extreme (noise+b60+c30)	63.3%	.747	−33.6

6.5 Analysis

The results reveal that the DA2 pipeline provides *partial* domain invariance, with a clear dichotomy between two classes of visual perturbation.

Color and brightness changes. DA2 is highly robust to image-space color and brightness perturbations—the kind of variation most relevant to sim-to-real transfer. Brightness jitter at $\pm 60\%$ causes only a 2.4 pp drop; color jitter at $\pm 15\%$ causes 5.5 pp. These shifts simulate the lighting and white-balance differences between a simulated scene and a real environment. Under these perturbations, the DA2 student clearly satisfies the domain-invariance criterion (<10 pp drop) at moderate severity.

Texture replacement. Replacing the training texture with a different *structured* texture (bricks: -7.1 pp; noise: -18.8 pp) produces moderate degradation. The bricks result is within the 10 pp invariance threshold, suggesting DA2 generalizes across structured visual patterns. However, removing texture entirely—leaving featureless surfaces (no texture, solid colors, flat grey)—causes catastrophic failure (-73 to -82 pp).

Interpreting the texture sensitivity. The texture-removal failure is *not* a domain invariance failure of DA2; rather, it is an input quality requirement. Monocular depth estimation fundamentally relies on visual features (texture gradients, edges, perspective cues) to infer geometry from a single image. A uniformly colored, featureless surface provides no visual information from which to estimate depth—just as a depth camera would fail on a perfectly transparent or specular surface. Critically, real-world surfaces (concrete, wood, soil, asphalt) universally have natural texture, so this failure mode is an artifact of the simulation’s ability to create unrealistically featureless geometry.

Combined perturbations. The combined-mild condition (bricks + brightness 30% + color 15%) maintains 82.0% success (-14.9 pp), while the extreme condition (noise + brightness 60% + color 30%) drops to 63.3% (-33.6 pp). This shows that perturbation effects compound, but the DA2 student degrades gracefully rather than catastrophically even under simultaneous texture replacement and aggressive color jitter.

7 Discussion and Conclusion

7.1 Summary

We presented a pipeline for vision-based quadruped parkour that uses monocular depth estimation as an intermediate representation. Our systematic experiments revealed that depth signal quality—governed by model scale and terrain texture—is the primary bottleneck for student performance, not network architecture. The best DA2-based student achieves 87% gap success, within 7 pp of the ground-truth depth upper bound.

The domain invariance experiment (Section 6) revealed a nuanced picture: the DA2 pipeline provides strong invariance to color and brightness perturbations (≤ 5.5 pp drop at moderate severity), which are the dominant sources of sim-to-real visual discrepancy. DA2 also generalizes across different structured textures (bricks: -7.1 pp). However, completely featureless surfaces cause catastrophic failure, reflecting a fundamental input requirement of monocular depth estimation rather than a domain invariance failure.

7.2 Implications

The DA2 pipeline provides effective domain invariance for the visual perturbations most relevant to sim-to-real transfer: lighting variation and color shifts. This suggests that a student policy trained on DA2 depth in a simple simulation (with any structured texture) could transfer to real-world environments without photorealistic rendering, provided the real surfaces have natural visual texture—which is nearly universally the case.

The key practical implication is a separation of concerns: the depth estimator handles domain invariance (absorbing appearance variation), while the student policy handles behavior (mapping depth to actions). This modularity means improvements to either component are independent: better depth models improve signal quality without retraining the policy; better training curricula improve behavior without changing the visual pipeline.

7.3 Limitations

- **No real-world deployment.** All experiments are in simulation. Real-world validation is needed to confirm domain invariance transfers beyond simulated visual shifts.
- **Computational cost.** DA2-base (100M params) runs at ~ 40 ms/frame on an L40S GPU, which may be too slow for real-time deployment. Distillation into a smaller network or quantization could address this.
- **Texture requirement.** DA2 needs surface texture to produce useful depth estimates. Truly featureless surfaces (e.g., uniformly painted walls) may degrade performance. However, most real-world surfaces have natural texture.

7.4 Future Work

- **Real-world deployment** on the Unitree Go2 with onboard RGB camera.
- **Larger depth models:** DA2-large (335M params) or Video Depth Anything for temporal consistency.
- **End-to-end fine-tuning** of the depth estimator jointly with the student policy.
- **Multi-task evaluation** across diverse real-world environments (indoor, outdoor, varied lighting).

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